

Experiential constructions in Mundari¹⁾

Toshiki OSADA

(International Research Center for Japanese Studies)

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0. Introduction

In my previous book, I have discussed the so-called 'dative subject' in Mundari (Osada 1992: 104–109). My treatment was, however, inadequate for several reasons.

First I gave my attention only to the so-called 'dative subject' as an Indian areal feature. Since Masica (1976) has suggested that the 'dative subject' is a common areal feature in the Indian subcontinent, 'dative subject' has become one of the most popular topics among linguists studying South Asia (see Verma & Mohanan ed. 1990; Abbi 1994). This led me to see that the Mundari construction differs from the Indo-Aryan one in many respects.

Secondly Bernard Comrie has rightly pointed out this shortcoming in his book review on my book: "Osada does not really argue for the noun phrase in question being a subject: its morphology (as seen through coreference with object affixes on the verb - there is no nominal morphological distinction between subject and object in Mundari) would suggest *prima facie* that it is an object, and one would need evidence to argue for its analysis as a subject, parallel to that adduced for dative subjects in other languages" (Comrie 1993: 1182). Thus the term 'dative subject' is entirely incorrect.

Thirdly I avoided discussing syntactic issues, especially grammatical relations in my book. I, therefore, would like to revise my previous analysis of this topic from a syntactic point of view.

In addition to the inadequacy of my previous treatment of this construction I have another motivation for writing this paper. Anvita Abbi has demonstrated the similarity among Indo-Aryan, Dravidian and Munda of experiencer noun marking as follows: "Typologically Indo-Aryan, Munda and Dravidian languages more or less share the patterning of direct and oblique experiencer noun marking" (Abbi 1994: 79). She has described the postposition *ke* as a dative case marking and the noun phrase marked by the postposition *ke* as an experiencer²⁾ in Mundari.

2) I demonstrate here an example. Ex. *əiyā-ke pita pəseind mena* (I+DAT

However it seems to me that her data on Mundari are totally different from mine. As is well known, this postposition *ke* is recently borrowed from the adjoining Indo-Aryan, notably Sadani. In the Hasada Dialect, which is regarded as a standard, this postposition is rarely used. Thus her analysis is not applicable at least to my data. In this paper I give an alternative analysis on experiential constructions in Mundari to the South Asian areal linguists.

This paper will present a new analysis of experiential constructions from a syntactic point of view, and attempt for the first time to examine the dative (experiencer) subject as an South Asian areal feature from the Mundaist's point of view. In the conclusion I claim that Mundari is quite different from Indo-Aryan languages in this respect.

1. Verbal morphology

1. 1. Verbal structure

The verbal morphology of Mundari is very complicated. The basic verbal structure in Mundari may be described as follows:

$$(1) \text{ (NP=SUB) Verb base + (ASP marker) + (} n \text{) + } a \text{ (=SUB)} \\ \text{+ (} d/? \text{) (+OBJ)}$$

n : intransitive marker, *d/?* : transitive marker (morphological variants),
a : indicative marker³⁾.

A verbal base is formed by affixing to a verbal stem. Verbal bases

bread like be) 'I like bread' (Abbi 1994: 71). This is a calque of the following Hindi sentence: *mujhe pītaa* (or *roTīi*) *pasand hai* (me.DAT bread like be) 'I like bread'. In my data there is no dative markers as follows: *lad=eñ suku-a* (bread=1SG: SUB like-IND) 'I like bread'. All Mundari sentence examples given by Abbi are totally different from my data.

3) I used the term "predicator" in my previous book (Osada 1992: 85) adopting Langendoen (1967)'s terminology. However the term "predicator" has a slightly different meaning in recent linguistic literatures. So I use here the indicative marker for *a*.

can be either simple or complex; complex bases are formed by reduplicating or serializing the verbal stem.

The aspect markers are divided into two classes: perfective and imperfective. The perfective aspect markers are four: *a* (cislocative), *ke* (completive), *le* (anterior), *ja* (ingressive). There are two imperfective aspect markers: *ta* (progressive) and *aka* (continuous).

1. 2. Intransitive, transitive, causative and passive

The verbal stem in Mundari is either transitive or intransitive. The intransitive verbal stems have two subsets. One is a small set of purely intransitive verbs (2a), which never take the transitive marker. The other intransitive verbs are fluid (2b), i.e., they can be used transitively. Transitive verb stems are given in 2c. Thus⁴⁾,

- (2) a. *inung* 'to play', *ang* 'to dawn', *DoNDo* 'to be foolish', etc.
- b. *dub* 'to sit', *bolo* 'to enter', *kaTab* 'to fast', etc.
- c. *jom* 'to eat', *lel* 'to see', *sab* 'to catch', etc.

Transitivity is demonstrated by the ability to take object pronominal affixes on verbs. When the object pronominal is marked in the verbal morphology, the transitive marker *-d- / -ʔ-* is also present, except under special conditions.

The transitive marker and intransitive marker play a crucial role for causativisation and passivisation. When the fluid type of intransitive verb is used transitively, I consider it as a causativized form of an intransitive verb (3). On the other hand, when a transitive verb is used intransitively, I regard it as a passivised form of a transitive verb (4). For example⁵⁾,

4) I use *ng* for /ŋ/, *T* for /t/, *D* for /d/, *R* for /ɾ/, *N* for /ŋ/ and *ñ* for /ɲ/ in this paper.

5) In the sentence examples I denote the symbol - for morpheme boundaries and the symbol = for clitic boundaries.

- (3) a. *Soma ote-re=? dub-aka-n-a*
 Soma ground-in=3SG:SUB sit-CONT-INTR-IND
 'Soma is sitting on the ground'
- b. *Soma hon-ko ote-re=? dub-aka-d-ko-a*
 Soma child-PL ground-in=3SG:SUB sit-CONT-TR-3PL:OBJ-IND
 'Soma has seated the children on the ground'
- (4) a. *pulis-ko kumbuRu-king=ko sab-aka-d-king-a*
 police-PL thief-DU=3PL:SUB catch-CONT-TR-3DU:OBJ-IND
 'The policemen have caught the two thieves'
- b. *kumbuRu-king sab-aka-n-a=king*
 thief-DU catch-CONT-INTR-IND=3DU:SUB
 'The two thieves have been caught'

1. 3. Subject marking and object marking

When the subject NP and object NP are animate, subject and object agreement elements can be affixed to the verb. The following personal pronominal suffixes are used for subject-object agreement:

(5)	SG	DU	PL
1st (INC)	-ñ	-lang	-bu
(EXC)		-ling	-le
2nd	-m/-me	-ben	-pe
3rd	-e/-i/-e?/-i?	-king	-ko

The same forms are used for subject and object, but occupy different slots. The subject agreement element is attached as a clitic either to the end of the verb or to the preverbal NP which may be in a subject or a non-subject role. The object agreement element occurs before the indicative marker *-a* and after the transitive marker *-d/-?* in unmarked sentences.

As Comrie states, "there is no nominal morphological distinction bet-

ween subject and object in Mundari". Further, the word order is not fixed for subject NP and object NP. Subject and object agreement, therefore, is very important for the signaling of grammatical relations. But in some cases ambiguity can not be excluded. When the subject NP and object NP have the same person and number the sentence is ambiguous. For instance,

- (6) *Soma seta=e? hua-ki-ʔ-i-a*
 Soma dog=3SG:SUB bite-COMPL-TR-3SG:OBJ-IND
 i. 'Soma bit the dog'
 ii. 'The dog bit Soma'

On pragmatic grounds, meaning (i) may be less likely. But if *pusi* 'cat' is placed in the first position instead of *Soma*, the sentence is totally ambiguous.

- (7) *pusi seta=e? hua-ki-ʔ-i-a*
 cat dog=3SG:SUB bite-COMPL-TR-3SG:OBJ-IND
 i. 'The cat bit the dog'
 ii. 'The dog bit the cat'

One construction in which subjects and objects may be distinguishable is in relative clause constructions. The head NP in relative clauses can be a subject or an object in Mundari. But the transitive marker and intransitive marker can be used to distinguish the subject head NP from the object head NP. Thus,

- (8) a. *pusi hua-ke-n-seta=e? goy-ja-n-a*
 cat bite-COMPL-INTR-dog=3SG:SUB die-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The dog who bit the cat has died'

- b. *pusi hua-ke-d-seta=e?* *goy-ja-n-a*
 cat bite-COMPL-TR-dog=3SG:SUB die-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The dog whom the cat bit has died'

I have discussed subject marking and object marking here. As is shown above, these marking systems can indicate grammatical relations in Mundari to some extent. However, the subject and object agreement element can be marked only when the subject NP and object NP are classified as animate nouns. I will discuss this in detail in the next section.

2. Grammatical relations

2.1. Animacy hierarchy

The cross-linguistically valid animacy hierarchy has been much discussed by many linguists (Silverstein 1976, Comrie 1978, 1989, Dixon 1979, DeLancy 1981, Croft 1990, 1991, 1995, Palmer 1994 etc.). The animacy hierarchy can be formulated as follows:

speaker/addressee > 3rd person pronouns > human proper nouns >
 human common nouns > other animate nouns > inanimate nouns

This hierarchy means that "NPs higher on the inherent salience hierarchy tend to occupy more prominent syntactic positions than NPs lower on it" (Foley & Van Valin 1985: 288). The animacy hierarchy originated from discussions of the phenomenon of 'split ergativity'. In other words, it is based on the semantic nature of NPs (Dixon 1979: 85). Thus I may apply it to subject and object in Mundari.

In Mundari grammar, the distinction between animate and inanimate nouns plays an important role, as I have seen the verbal morphology in 1.3. I will discuss the distinction from a syntactic point of view below.

2. 2. S, A and O

I will adopt here the following terms for grammatical relations from Dixon (1979, 1994): S for intransitive subject, A for transitive subject, O for transitive object.

First of all, I will give the first criterion for assigning the NPs to grammatical relations in Mundari in (9).

(9) If S, A, O NPs are animate nouns, the grammatical relations can be identified by the subject and object marking system in the verbal morphology.

This system has already been discussed in 1. 3.

The second criterion is given in (10).

(10) A NPs are basically animate nouns.

According to Dixon the animacy hierarchy denotes the 'likelihood of functioning as transitive agent' (Dixon 1979: 85). There is usually a cut-off point for functioning as a transitive agent in the hierarchy. In Mundari the cut-off point is between other animate nouns and inanimate nouns. Thus, (11) is not grammatical because its A is inanimate.

- (11) **maNDi* *hon-ko* *bisi-ja-d-ko-a*
 food child-PL poison-INGR-TR-3PL:OBJ-IND
 'The food has poisoned the children'

As the A NP *maNDi* 'food' is inanimate this sentence is not acceptable. Instead the instrumental postposition *te* is normally used in a passive construction,

- (12) *maNDi-te hon-ko=ko bisi-ja-n-a*
 food-by child-PL=3PL:SUB poison-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The children have been poisoned by the food'

Some inanimate nouns denoting natural objects, which are capable of automatic locomotion, can occupy the A slot. In that case, the subject agreement element gets marked on the verb like an animate A NP. This is called animatization. As with a regular transitive clause only the 'animatized' A argument gets cross-referenced by a bound pronoun irrespective of the animacy of the O NP. For example,

- (13) *gaRa buru=i? bai-ke-d-a*
 river mountain=3SG:SUB make-COMPL-TR-IND
 'The river made the mountain (by carrying the sands)'

- (14) *gaRa hon-ko=e? idi-ke-d-ko-a*
 river child-PL=3SG:SUB take-COMPL-TR-3PL:OBJ-IND
 'The river took away the children'

Among inanimate nouns, only natural forces, e.g. *hoyo* 'wind', *gama* 'rain' etc., can be animatized.

It is very easy to identify animate NPs as subject on the basis of (10), because an animate subject is always marked by a clitic pronoun. There is an exception, however, as inanimate NPs can be assigned to the A slot with a certain class of verbs. This is the topic in the next section.

3. Experiential verbal constructions

3. 1. Experiential verbs

As I mentioned above, the inanimate NP cannot normally occupy the A slot. But with some verbs, inanimate NPs can do this. The semantic range of these verbs is restricted to the following:

(15) a. Sensory and mental experiences

b. Emotional experiences

c. Physical and biological experiences

(These categories are due to Klaiman 1986. I give a list of verbs in the Appendix)

I call these experiential verbs. This semantic range almost corresponds interestingly with dative subject predicates in Indo-Aryan (Klaiman 1986, Abbi 1994).

There are two types of sentence in experiential verbal constructions in Mundari, as follows:

- (16) *balbal-te=ñ* *sowan-ta-n-a*
 sweat-by=1SG:SUB smell-PROG-INTR-IND
 'I am experiencing a smell of sweat'

- (17) *ne* *baa* *maja* *sowan-ja-ʔ-ñ-a*
 this flower good smell-INGR-TR-1SG:OBJ-IND
 'This flower has made me experience a good smell'

- (18) *sida* *samae* *susun-te=ko* *rasika-le-n-a*
 previous time dance-by=3PL:SUB be joyful-ANT-INTR-IND
 'In the previous time they had experienced joy through dancing'

- (19) *susun* *bese* *rasika-ke-d-ko-a*
 dance very be joyful-COMPL-TR-3PL:OBJ-IND
 'The dance made them experience joy'

In my book I made a distinction between the direct subject (16), (18) and the dative subject (17), (19) (Osada 1992: 106), because it is almost identical with subjective experience (taking direct subject) and objective experience (taking dative subject) in Hindi (see Masica 1976:

160–161). Further, when I adopt the analysis given for Indo-Aryan (Hindi: Kachru 1981; Bengali: Klaiman 1986) volitionality plays an important role for the distinction between (16) and (18) on the one hand, and (17) and (19) on the other. Thus I have interpreted the verb as expressing a volitional act in (16) and (18) but as expressing a non-volitional act in (17) and (19) (Osada 1992: 106). My previous analysis, however, contains serious mistakes⁶.

I recall the criterion (9) here. If I keep the criterion (9) for assigning the NP to grammatical relations by the morphological marking system, the subjects are either nothing, or inanimate nouns in (17) and (19) and the objects are *ñ* 'me' in (17) and *ko* 'them' in (19). So the term 'dative subject' is misleading. As I have discussed the grammatical relations above, these criteria will be kept throughout the paper. I will give a new analysis of experiential verbal constructions.

3. 2. Experienter and stimulus

The new analysis will adopt the term 'experienter' and 'stimulus'. The experienter denotes the human experienter of sensory, mental, emotional, physical and biological states expressed by the experiential verbs, while the stimulus is the source or cause of experience.

Further I will adopt the notion of 'experienter-subject' from Croft (1991, 1993) for a typological analysis of mental verbs, where experiential verbs assign the experienter to the subject position in (16) and (18). In (17) and (19), on the other hand, the experienter is assigned to the object position. I, therefore, consider it as the experienter-object construction. This analysis is useful, because it enables us to keep the criteria for subject- object assignment.

Now I will give a new analysis of experiential construction. In

6) In this paper I revise my previous interpretation; i.e., the volitionality plays an important role for the distinction between (16) and (18) on the one hand, and (17) and (19) on the other. An alternative interpretation will be discussed in detail later in 4.

general I regard an experiential verb as an intransitive verb (see 16 and 18). Then I consider the same experiential verb as a causativized form of an intransitive verb in the object-experiencer construction (see 17 and 19), as I have seen in 1. 2. This analysis fits Croft (1991)'s cross-linguistic findings that "experiencer-object verbs are causative" (p. 215).

The stimulus occurs with the instrumental postposition *-te* in the experiencer-subject construction shown in (16) and (18), and as a subject in the experiencer-object construction shown in (17) and (19). Are the NPs *ne baa* in (17) and *susun* in (19) really subjects? And are the NPs *n̄* in (17) and *ko* in (19) really objects? Thus I will make a syntactic test for subjecthood and objecthood by using a relativization, as I have demonstrated above in (8).

- (20) *maja sowan-le-n-baa gosop̄-ja-n-a*
 good smell-ANT-INTR-flower die-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The good-smelling flower has withered'
- (21) *ne baa maja sowan-le-d̄(hoRo) = ko⁷⁾ senop̄-ja-n-a*
 this flower good smell-ANT-TR-(people)=3PL:SUB go-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The people whom this flower made experience a good smell have gone'
- (22) *bese rasika-ke-n-susun nimir caba-ja-n-a*
 very be joyful-COMPL-INTR-dance recently finish-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The very joyful dance has finished recently'
- (23) *susun bese rasika-ke-d̄(hoRo) = ko marang-ja-n-a*
 dance very be joyful-COMPL-TR-(people)=3PL:SUB grow-INGR-INTR-IND
 'The people whom the dance made joyful have grown up'

7) The first and second person pronouns cannot occupy the head slot in the relative clause. Thus I replace the first person pronoun *n̄* by the third person plural pronoun *ko*.

As the intransitive marker *-n-* appears in (20) and (22), the NPs *baa* and *susun* are subjects. On the other hand, the transitive marker *-d-* occurs in (21) and (23) the NPs (*hoRo*)-*kos* are objects. My new analysis is thus supported by the syntactic test of relativization.

As far as S, A and O NPs are concerned, I will add an important note here. The stimulus is always an inanimate noun. In other words, A NPs in the object-experiencer construction are inanimate nouns. For instance, the following sentences are not acceptable:

- (24) **ne kuRi maja=e? sowan-ja-ʔ-ñ-a*
 this girl good=3SG:SUB smell-INGR-TR-1SG:OBJ-IND
 ‘This girl made me experience a good smell’

- (25) **susun kuRi bese=? rasika-ke-d-ko-a*
 dance girl very=3SG:SUB be joyful-COMPL-TR-3PL:OBJ-IND
 ‘The dancing girl made them experience a joy’

In order to say the equivalent sentences of (24) and (25) in Mundari, these should be replaced by (26) and (27) respectively.

- (26) *ne kuRi-a? sowan maja sowan-ja-ʔ-ñ-a*
 this girl-GEN smell good smell-INGR-TR-1SG:OBJ-IND
 ‘This girl’s smell made me experience a good smell’

- (27) *susun kuRi=ko lel-ki-ʔi-ci bese rasika-ke-d-ko-a*
 dance girl=3SG:SUB see-COMPL-TR-3SG:OBJ-CONJ very be joyful-COMPL-TR-IND
 ‘Seeing the dancing girl made them experience a joy’

I, therefore, rewrite the second criterion (see 10) for subject-object assignment here.

- (28) A NPs are animate nouns except for the object-experiencer con-

struction.

As illustrated above, an experiential verb in Mundari is considered as an intransitive. That is to say, in the experiencer-subject constructions, only the experiencer assigned to S occurs, and the stimulus occurs with the instrumental postposition *-te*. However a few experiential verbs, ex. *suku* 'to feel happy, to like', *kairao* 'to feel angry, to get angry', *giu?* 'to feel ashamed, to shame', can act as transitive verbs. In that case, the animate NPs can occupy the O slot not as stimuli, but as beneficiaries. I show the general benefactive construction in (29) and the experiencer-subject and beneficiary-object construction in (30) and (31).

- (29) *maNDi am=iñ om-a-m-ta-n-a*
 food you=1SG:SUB give-BENE-2SG:OBJ-PROG-INTR-IND
 'I am giving you the food'

- (30) *am=iñ giu?-a-m-ta-n-a*
 you=1SG:SUB shame-BENE-2SG:OBJ-PROG-INTR-IND
 'I am feeling shame at you'

- (31) *ne kuRi-king=iñ suku-aka-n-a*
 this girl-DU=1SG:SUB like-CONT-INTR-IND
 'I like these girls'

(30) and (31) are transitive constructions, but the intransitive marker *-n* should follow⁸). Further, there are no experiencer-object constructions corresponding to (30) and (31) in Mundari. This is a great difference between Indo-Aryan and Mundari with respect to experiential

8) This is very complex. A more detail discussion of the distinction between *-n-* and *-d-* can be found in Osada (1992: 98-100).

constructions. In Hindi, the following pair is easily seen⁹⁾:

- (32) *mAI roTii pasand kartaa hUU*
 I. NOM bread like do am
 'I like bread' (+/-volitional)

- (33) *mujhe roTii pasand hai*
 me.DAT bread liking are
 'I like bread' (-volitional)

As I pointed out in 3. 1, the difference between these two is due to volitionality in Hindi. But there are no such pairs in Mundari. Moreover, an experiential verb is transitive in Hindi (see 32), whereas an experiential verb is intransitive in Mundari. Thus my previous interpretation requires revision. I will discuss it in detail in the next section.

As demonstrated, a new analysis of the experiential construction is applicable not only to the subject-object assignment specifically in Mundari, but also to cross-linguistic generalization on experiencer-subject and experiencer-object constructions.

4. Difference in experiential constructions between Mundari and Indo-Aryan languages

Experiential constructions in Indo-Aryan languages are described below. The experiential construction corresponds to the dative subject construction in Indo-Aryan. The dative subject construction means that "one of the NPs which is a prime candidate for the syntactic role of subject is marked by the dative case in many New Indo-Aryan (and non-NIA) languages. (Not in all: in Bengali and to a lesser extent in Assamese and Oriya it is marked in many of its manifestations by the

9) The capital letter *AI* and *UU* in Hindi are described as the nasal vowel; i.e., [āi] and [ūū] respectively.

genitive case)" (Masica 1991: 346). Masica (1991: 347-349) has summarized the semantic range of experiencer subject predicates as follows:

- (34) a. physical sensations and conditions.
 b. psychological or mental states, including liking, perceiving.
 c. wanting or needing.
 d. obligation or compulsion
 e. having kinship relations (several languages show genitives here)
 f. external circumstances affecting but not controlled by the dative (or genitive) NP

First of all, it should be pointed out that the chief morphosyntactic difference between Mundari and Indo-Aryan in the experiential construction is in the case-marking system. Mundari has no case marking for the nominative and accusative. Mundari has recently borrowed the dative case marking *-ke* from the adjoining Indo-Aryan languages, notably Sadani. However, only the Tamar dialect reflects this influence.

As for the semantic range of dative subject predicates, much of the semantic range of experiential verbs in Mundari is similar to Indo-Aryan. (34a) in Masica's classification corresponds to (15c) in my classification, and (34b) to (15a). As can be seen in the list of the Mundari experiential verbs based on my classification (see appendix), Masica's (34c) 'wanting or needing' is classified into (15b); e.g. *sanang* 'to feel desire' (usually to express wanting), *mone* 'to feel desire' (usually to express needing). There are, however, no examples corresponding to (34d, f) in Mundari. Obligation/compulsion is expressed in Mundari by verbal suffix (35b) with a regular object, while uncontrolled external circumstances, as in (36b), take no special marking. For example,

- (35) a. *mujhe jaanaa hai* (Hindi)
 I.DAT go be
 'I have to go'
- b. *añ senoʔ-rangatin-a* (Mundari)
 I go-must-IND
 'I have to go'
- (36) a. *mujhe mor kaa ek pankh milaa* (Hindi)
 me peacock GEN one feather found
 'I found a peacock feather'
- b. *malaʔ-reaʔ iil=iñ nam-ke-d-a* (Mundari)
 peacock-GEN feather=1SG:SUB find-COMPL-TR-IND
 'I found a peacock feather'

On Masica's (34e) it is very interesting that the subject-object marking system is slightly different in Mundari. Thus,

- (37) a. *ei bhodrolak-er kono shontaan neii* (Bengali)
 that gentleman-GEN any son NEG.COP
 'That gentleman has no sons'
- b. *en gomke-taʔ-re hon-ko ban-ko-a* (Mundari)
 that gentleman-around-in child-PL NEG.COP-3PL-IND
 'That gentleman has no sons'

When the existential animate NP *hon-ko* is marked in the verbal morphology, the agreement element, i.e., the third person plural *ko* occupies the object slot. I call this the existential construction. According to Masica, this construction applies only for "having kinship relations" in New Indo-Aryan. But I can always find this object-marking system in existential constructions in Mundari. This issue is not discussed in detail here, because this paper is restricted to experiential constructions.

Finally I deal with the semantics of contrast between experiencer-subject constructions and experiencer-object constructions. In my book I presented this contrast as one made by volitionality. This interpretation was easily adopted from the Indo-Aryan cases. In Mundari, however, I don't have the same pair as seen in the Hindi examples (35) and (36). What's more the grammatical function of an experiential verb is also different in Mundari; it is intransitive, whereas in Hindi; it is transitive. Thus my previous interpretation must be revised.

Instead of volitionality, I would like to suggest that the difference can be explained by the contrast between general and specific. For example,

- (38) = (16) *balbal-te=ñ sowan-ta-n-a*
 sweat-by=1SG:SUB smell-PROG-INTR-IND
 'I am experiencing a smell by sweat'

- (39) *balbal sowan-ja-ʔ-ñ-a*
 sweat smell-INGR-TR-1SG:OBJ-IND
 'This sweat has made me experience a (bad) smell'

- (40) *sida samae=ko renggeʔ-le-n-a*
 previous time=3PL:SUB feel hungry-ANT-INTR-IND
 'In the previous time they had experienced a hunger; i.e. they had been poor.'

- (41) *en samae maNDi renggeʔ-le-d-ko-a*
 that time food feel hungry-ANT-TR-3PL:OBJ-IND
 'The food made them experience a hunger at that time'

According to my informants, the following explanation can be made; in (38), the experiencer 'I' smells of his own sweat and everyone perceives his bad smell, while in (39), the smell of sweat reaches the

specific experiencer 'me' irrespective of other persons' experience. In (40), the experiencer 'they' felt hungry constantly, and everyone knew about their condition, while in (41), the appetite caused by the sight of food arose in the specific experiencers 'them' irrespective of other persons' experience. According to my previous interpretation, the poor condition is volitional and the hungry situation is non-volitional. But this interpretation is unnatural.

To sum up, there are some overlaps between Mundari experiential constructions and Indo-Aryan dative (experiencer) subject constructions. However, the differences are more prominent: the experiential verb is intransitive in Mundari and transitive in New Indo-Aryan; case marking is different; most importantly, the syntax of the two constructions is very different: New Indo-Aryan has dative-subjects while Mundari has experiencer-object constructions in Mundari; the semantics of contrast is also different: the contrast is due to general vs. specific in Mundari but neutral vs. non-volitional in New Indo-Aryan. The contrasts in experiential constructions between Mundari and Indo-Aryan languages can be summarised by the following chart:

	Mundari	New Indo-Aryan
Experiential verbs	intransitive	transitive
Syntax of experiencer	object	dative subject
Semantics of contrast	general vs. specific	neutral vs. non-volitional
Range of verbs	Masica (1991)'s classification: a. b. c. (e.) See example (34) above.	Masica (1991)'s classification: a. b. c. d. e. f. See example (34) above.

5. Conclusion

The previous analysis with respect to experiential constructions in

Mundari should be revised with regard to the following points:

1. I adopted the terms 'dative subject' and 'direct subject' in my book. But this is untenable because the relevant arguments are treated as objects, not subjects.

2. Instead of dative subject constructions, the notion of experiential constructions should be introduced. In place of the terms 'dative subject' and 'direct subject' should be replaced by the terms 'object-experiencer' and 'subject-experiencer' respectively. This analysis is applicable not only to the subject-object assignment specific linguistically, i.e., in Mundari, but also to typological pattern cross-linguistically suggested by Croft (1991, 1993).

Further, my analysis suggests that the experiential constructions in Mundari are different from the dative (experiencer) subject constructions in Indo-Aryan, although the semantic range of predicates in these constructions is slightly overlapping. The differences are mainly due to the grammatical function of experiential verbs, i.e., intransitive/transitive distinctions and the case marking system. In addition, the contrast between the direct subject and the dative subject in Indo-Aryan (neutral vs. nonvolitional) is different from one between the subject-experiencer and object-experiencer in Mundari (general vs. specific).

Generally speaking, overall a present knowledge of Munda languages does not allow us to generalize about so-called areal features in South Asia. It is very easy to point out superficial resemblances among South Asian languages. But a much more detail scrutiny of data is necessary before we can achieve any reliable understanding. I hope my paper offers a first step towards such an understanding.

Abbreviations

A=Transitive subject

ANT=Anterior

ASP=Aspect

BENE=Benefactive

COMPL=Completive

CONJ=Conjunctive

CONT=Continuous

COP=Copula

DAT=Dative

DU=Dual

EXC=Exclusive

GEN=Genitive

INC=Inclusive

IND=Indicative

INGR=Ingressive

INTR=Intransitive

NEG=Negator

NOM=Nominative

O=Transitive object

OBJ=Object

PL=Plural

PROG=Progressive

S=Intransitive subject

SG=Singular

SUB=Subject

TR=Transitive

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Appendix

A list of experiential verbs in Mundari

A. Sensory and mental experience

<i>bulung</i>	'to taste salty'
<i>harad</i>	'to taste hot'
<i>heRem</i>	'to taste sweet'
<i>jojo</i>	'to taste sour'
<i>ram</i>	'to taste salty'
<i>saba?</i>	'to taste nothing'
<i>sibil</i>	'to taste good'
<i>sowan</i>	'to smell'

B. Emotional experience

<i>akabakao</i>	'to feel confused'
<i>asadi</i>	'to feel bored'
<i>ceNTa</i>	'to feel jealous'
<i>duku</i>	'to be sad'
<i>giu?</i>	'to feel ashamed'
<i>kairao</i>	'to feel angry'
<i>kiis</i>	'to feel angry'
<i>mukun</i>	'to feel lonely'
<i>mone</i>	'to feel desire'
<i>rasika</i>	'to be joyful'
<i>sanang</i>	'to feel desire'
<i>suku</i>	'to feel happy'

C. Physical and biological experience

<i>babata</i>	'to feel itchy'
<i>balbal</i>	'to perspire'
<i>bul</i>	'to feel drunk'

<i>Dobo?</i>	'to feel sleepy'
<i>duRum</i>	'to feel sleepy'
<i>gamang</i>	'to feel ticklish'
<i>hambal</i>	'to feel heavy'
<i>hasu</i>	'to feel pain'
<i>jeTe?</i>	'to feel sunshine'
<i>katuao</i>	'to feel cold'
<i>laga</i>	'to feel tired'
<i>lolo</i>	'to feel hot'
<i>rabal</i>	'to feel light'
<i>rabang</i>	'to feel cold'
<i>rengge?</i>	'to feel hungry'
<i>rua</i>	'to feel sick'
<i>rukuRu</i>	'to feel pain'
<i>sukul</i>	'to feel smoky'
<i>tatai</i>	'to feel sticky'
<i>tetang</i>	'to feel thirsty'
<i>tutukun</i>	'to feel cold'
<i>urgum</i>	'to feel warm'

ムンダ語の経験的動詞構文について

長 田 俊 樹

(国際日本文化研究センター)

ムンダ語には、感覚や心理、および生理的な経験をしめす動詞に二種の構文がある。前著(Osada 1992)では、それぞれ直接主語構文と与格主語構文とみなし、インド・アーリア諸語(以下 IA)やドラヴィダ諸語と共通する南アジア言語領域の特徴と考えた。ところが、ムンダ語には主語と目的語の形態論的区別はなく、与格主語構文とみるのはあきらかに誤りである。そこで、統語論的視点から、あらたに分析を試みた。その結果、ムンダ語の経験的動詞構文と IA のそれとの間に以下のような相違点のあることがあきらかになった。

経験的動詞はムンダ語では自動詞なのに対し、IA では他動詞である。経験者は IA では与格主語なのに対し、ムンダ語では目的語として表示される。また、これら二種構文の意味的相違は、IA では中立・非意志性の対立を示すのに対し、ムンダ語では一般・特定の対立であるなど、従来指摘されてきた類似点より相違点が多いことを論証した。

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